

Recap and Probability Rules

Course information

- **We have weekly homework which will be released every Friday and due on next Friday**
 - Homework this week will cover three lectures (Sep 24, 26, and 28)
- **We have two midterms and a final exam; the dates are to be determined.**
- **Final grade formular:**

A	Homework
B	In-class activity and class participation
C	Midterm exam I
D	Midterm exam II
E	Final exam

$$\max\{(.15A+.15B + .2C + .2D + .3E), (.15A+.15B + .3C + .1D + .3E), (.15A+.15B + .1C + .3D + .3E)\}$$

Course information

- **Course materials**

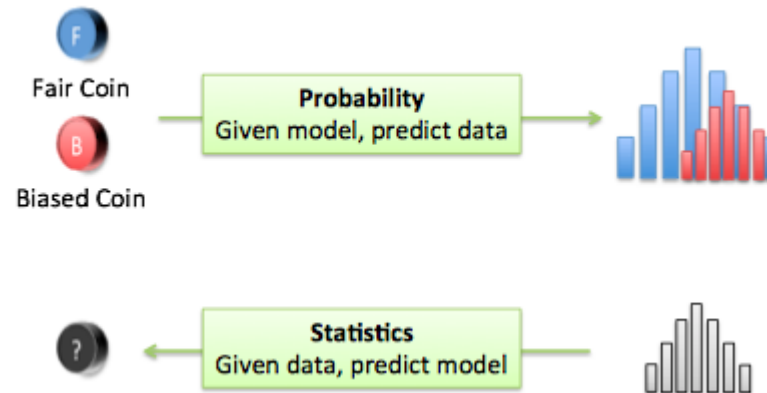
- <http://courses.engr.illinois.edu/ece313/fa2020/probabilityJan25.pdf>
- Sheldon M. Ross, Introduction to Probability Models, 11th edition, Academic Press, 2014 (available online)

- **Teaching assistant**

No	Name	Email
1	Ruixi, Qin	ruixi.22@intl.zju.edu.cn
2	Linzhi, Du	linzhi.22@intl.zju.edu.cn
3	Dayu, Xia	dayu.22@intl.zju.edu.cn

- **Office hours: by appointment (send us email)**

Difference between Probability and Statistics



Statistics:

- Summary of the data
- Estimate parameters
- Test hypotheses

Probability:

- Probabilities of events
- Expected values
- Variance

Question 1

A computer system contains 50 executable files and is attacked by a virus.

Problem 1: During the attack, each file is affected with unknown probability p . We observe that 15 files are affected. Estimate p .

Problem 2: During the attack, each file is affected with probability 0.2. How likely is it that at least 15 files get affected?

- A. Problem 1 is a probabilistic problem and Problem 2 a statistical problem.
- B. Problem 1 is a statistical problem and Problem 2 a probabilistic problem.
- C. Both are probabilistic problems.
- D. Both are statistical problems.

Three Components in Probability

- Sample space
- Event
- Probability function

Sample spaces

Definition:

An experiment is an activity or procedure that produces distinct possibilities, called outcomes.

In probability and statistics, randomness is involved: outcome of experiment is uncertain.

The set of all outcomes is called the sample space.

Notation:

Sample space: $\Omega = \{\dots\}$.

Outcome a is an element of the sample space: $a \in \Omega$.



Examples

Experiment I: Throw a coin. Sample space?

$$\Omega = \{\text{Heads}, \text{Tails}\}$$

Experiment II: Throw one die. Sample space?

$$\Omega = \{1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6\}$$

Experiment III: Waiting time for next bus. Sample space?

$$\Omega = [0, \infty)$$

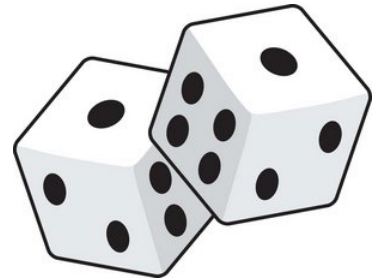
Experiment IV: Output of 4 calls of random number generator (0 or 1).
Sample space?

$$\begin{aligned}\Omega &= \{(0, 0, 0, 0), (0, 0, 0, 1), \dots, (0, 1, 1, 1), (1, 1, 1, 1)\} \\ &= \{(x_1, x_2, x_3, x_4) : x_i \in \{0, 1\}\}\end{aligned}$$



Question 2

We throw one die twice. The set of possible outcomes of this experiment is given by



- A. $\Omega = \{2, 3, \dots, 12\}$
- B. $\Omega = \{(1, 1), (1, 2), \dots, (6, 5), (6, 6)\}$
 $= \{(i, j) \mid 1 \leq i, j \leq 6\}$
- C. $\Omega = \{(1, 1), (1, 2), \dots, (5, 6), (6, 6)\}$
 $= \{(i, j) \mid 1 \leq i \leq j \leq 6\}$
- D. $\Omega = \{\{1, 1\}, \{1, 2\}, \dots, \{5, 6\}, \{6, 6\}\}$

Events

Definition:

An event is a subset of the sample space.

Examples:

Throw a coin three times: “Heads is thrown once” is an event.

Throw a die twice: “Sum is eight” is also an event.



Probability function

Definition:

Let Ω be a sample space. A probability function P assigns to each event A in Ω a number $P(A)$ in $[0, 1]$ such that:

1. $P(\Omega) = 1$.
2. $P(A \cup B) = P(A) + P(B)$, if A and B are disjoint.

The number $P(A)$ is called the probability of A .



Example

Experiment: month of birth of random person.

Sample space: $\Omega = \{\text{Jan, Feb, } \dots, \text{Nov, Dec}\}$.

~~Assume equal probabilities for all months.~~

Can you think of another relevant probability function?

Let A be the event $A = \{\text{Born in an even month}\}$.

Does $P(A)$ change?



Sum and complement rule

Theorem:

For any two events A and B we have:

$$P(A \cup B) = P(A) + P(B) - P(A \cap B).$$

Theorem:

For any event A we have:

$$P(A^c) = 1 - P(A).$$



Conditional probability

Definition:

The conditional probability of A given C is defined as:

$$P(A | C) = \frac{P(A \cap C)}{P(C)},$$

provided $P(C) > 0$.

Interpretation:

Restrict the sample space to C . Then the conditional probability of A given C is the probability of A in the reduced sample space C .



Question 3

Meet Steven. Steven is a real outdoorsman. He enjoys walks through the forest and is very fond of animals. Steven is physically very fit.

Is it more probable that Steven is a teacher or a park ranger?

A. Teacher

B. Park ranger

Multiplication rule

A box contains 10 pebbles of which 3 are granite.
You take out 2 pebbles (without looking).
What is the probability that both are granite?

Theorem:

For any two events A and C it holds that:

$$P(A \cap C) = P(A | C)P(C).$$



Question 4

Consider the following two statements:

1. $P(A \cap B) = P(A) + P(B) - P(A \cup B)$
2. $P(A \cap B) = P(A)P(B)$

Which of these statements is/are true?

- A. None
- B. Only 1
- C. Only 2
- D. Both

Question 5

Consider the following two statements:

1. $P(A | C) = P(C | A)$
2. $P(A \cap C) = P(C | A)P(A)$

Which of these statements is/are true?

- A.** None
- B.** Only 1
- C.** Only 2
- D.** Both

Question 6

Which of the following statements is true?

1. $P(A) = P(A | C) + P(A | C^c)$

2. $\frac{P(C | A)}{P(A | C)} = \frac{P(C)}{P(A)}$

Which of these statements is/are true?

- A.** None
- B.** Only 1
- C.** Only 2
- D.** Both

Law of total probability

Theorem:

Let A and C be two events. We have:

$$P(A) = P(A | C)P(C) + P(A | C^c)P(C^c).$$

Theorem:

Suppose $C_1, C_2, \dots, C_m$ are disjoint events such that

$$C_1 \cup C_2 \cup \dots \cup C_m = \Omega.$$

For any event A we have:

$$P(A) = P(A | C_1)P(C_1) + P(A | C_2)P(C_2) + \dots + P(A | C_m)P(C_m).$$



Bayes' Rule

Theorem:

Suppose the events $C_1, C_2, \dots, C_m$ are disjoint and fill up the sample space Ω . Then the conditional probability of C_i given some event A is given by

$$P(C_i | A) = \frac{P(A | C_i)P(C_i)}{P(A | C_1)P(C_1) + \dots + P(A | C_m)P(C_m)}$$



Independence of Events

Independence of Events

Independence of Events

- We define two events A and B to be **independent** if and only if:
$$P(A|B)=P(A)$$

Independence of Events

- We define two events A and B to be **independent** if and only if:
$$P(A|B)=P(A)$$
- From the discussion of conditional probability [provided $P(A) \neq 0$ and $P(B) \neq 0$]:

$$P(A \cap B) = P(A|B)P(B) = P(B|A)P(A)$$

- This leads to the following **usual definition of independence**:
Events A and B are said to be independent if:

$$P(A \cap B) = P(A)P(B)$$

Such events are also referred to as “stochastically independent events” or “statistically independent events.”

Independence of Events

- We define two events A and B to be **independent** if and only if:
$$P(A|B)=P(A)$$
- From the discussion of conditional probability [provided $P(A) \neq 0$ and $P(B) \neq 0$]:

$$P(A \cap B) = P(A|B)P(B) = P(B|A)P(A)$$

- This leads to the following **usual definition of independence**:
Events A and B are said to be independent if:

$$P(A \cap B) = P(A)P(B)$$

Such events are also referred to as “stochastically independent events” or “statistically independent events.”

- Note: **If A and B are not independent, then $P(A \cap B)$ is computed using the multiplication rule.**

A Simple Example: A CPU Board & Memory

A Simple Example: A CPU Board & Memory

A CPU board consists of a microprocessor CPU chip and a random access main memory chip. The CPU is selected from a lot of 100, of which 10 are defective and the memory chip is selected from a lot of 300, of which 15 are defective.

A Simple Example: A CPU Board & Memory

A CPU board consists of a microprocessor CPU chip and a random access main memory chip. The CPU is selected from a lot of 100, of which 10 are defective and the memory chip is selected from a lot of 300, of which 15 are defective.

Define A to be the event “The selected CPU is defective,” and

Define B to be the event “The selected memory chip is defective.”

A Simple Example: A CPU Board & Memory

A CPU board consists of a microprocessor CPU chip and a random access main memory chip. The CPU is selected from a lot of 100, of which 10 are defective and the memory chip is selected from a lot of 300, of which 15 are defective.

Define A to be the event “The selected CPU is defective,” and

Define B to be the event “The selected memory chip is defective.”

Then $P(A)=10/100=0.1$, and $P(B)=15/300=0.05$. Since the two chips are selected from different lots, we may expect the events A and B to be independent.

A Simple Example: A CPU Board & Memory

A CPU board consists of a microprocessor CPU chip and a random access main memory chip. The CPU is selected from a lot of 100, of which 10 are defective and the memory chip is selected from a lot of 300, of which 15 are defective.

Define A to be the event “The selected CPU is defective,” and

Define B to be the event “The selected memory chip is defective.”

Then $P(A)=10/100=0.1$, and $P(B)=15/300=0.05$. Since the two chips are selected from different lots, we may expect the events A and B to be independent.

Check: since there are 10×15 ways of choosing both defective chips, and there are 100×300 ways of choosing any two chips. Thus:

$$P(A \cap B) = \frac{10 \cdot 15}{100 \cdot 300} = 0.005 = 0.10 \cdot 0.05 = P(A)P(B).$$

Some Important Points about the Concept of Independence

Some Important Points about the Concept of Independence

- If A and B are two mutually exclusive events, then $A \cap B = \emptyset$, (Null Set) which implies $P(A \cap B) = 0$. Now, if they are independent as well, then either $P(A) = 0$ or $P(B) = 0$ (or both).

Some Important Points about the Concept of Independence

- If A and B are two mutually exclusive events, then $A \cap B = \emptyset$, (Null Set) which implies $P(A \cap B) = 0$. Now, if they are independent as well, then either $P(A) = 0$ or $P(B) = 0$ (or both).
- If an event A is independent of itself, i.e., if A and A are independent, then $P(A) = 0$ or $P(A) = 1$. The assumption of independence yields $P(A \cap A) = P(A)P(A)$ or $P(A) = P(A)^2$.

Some Important Points about the Concept of Independence

- If A and B are two **mutually exclusive** events, then $A \cap B = \emptyset$, (**Null Set**) which implies $P(A \cap B) = 0$. Now, if they are independent as well, then either $P(A) = 0$ or $P(B) = 0$ (or both).
- If an event A is independent of itself, i.e., if A and A are independent, then $P(A) = 0$ or $P(A) = 1$. The assumption of independence yields $P(A \cap A) = P(A)P(A)$ or $P(A) = P(A)^2$.
- **Note: If the events A and B are independent, and the events B and C are independent, then events A and C need not be independent (i.e., independence is not a transitive relation).**

Indendent vs. mutually exclusive

Card Example

Indendent vs. mutually exclusive

Card Example

- Are 'red card' (heart ♥ or diamond ♦) and 'spade' (♠) independent?
- Are they Mutually exclusive?

Indendent vs. mutually exclusive

Card Example

- Are 'red card' (heart ♥ or diamond ♦) and 'spade' (♠) independent?
 - Are they Mutually exclusive?
-
- Are 'red card' and 'ace' independent?
 - Are they Mutually exclusive?

Some Important Points about the Concept of Independence (cont.)

- If the events A and B are independent, then so are events $\bar{A}$ and B , events A and $\bar{B}$, and events $\bar{A}$ and $\bar{B}$.

Example 1: Demonstrating Dependence

- Suppose that we toss 2 fair dice. Let E_1 denote the event that the sum of the dice is 6 and F denote the event that the first die equals 4. Are these two events independent?

Example 1 continued

- Now suppose that we let E_2 be the event that the sum of the dice equals 7. Is E_2 independent of F ?

Example: Extending to three Events

Example: Extending to three Events

- Two fair dice are thrown. Let E denote the event that the sum of the dice is 7. Let F denote the event that the first die equals 4 and G denote the event that the second die equals 3.

Example: Extending to three Events

- Two fair dice are thrown. Let E denote the event that the sum of the dice is 7. Let F denote the event that the first die equals 4 and G denote the event that the second die equals 3.
- From Example 1, we know that E is independent of F , and the same reasoning as applied there shows that E is also independent of G ; but E is not independent of FG

Example: Extending to three Events

- Two fair dice are thrown. Let E denote the event that the sum of the dice is 7. Let F denote the event that the first die equals 4 and G denote the event that the second die equals 3.
- From Example 1, we know that E is independent of F , and the same reasoning as applied there shows that E is also independent of G ; but E is not independent of FG
- It follows that an appropriate definition of the independence of three events, E , F , and G would have to go further than merely assuming that all of the pairs of events are independent. We are thus led to the following definition.

Independence of E,F,G

Independence of E,F,G

- Three events, E , F , and G are said to be independent if

$$P(EFG) = P(E)P(F)P(G)$$

$$P(EF) = P(E)P(F)$$

$$P(EG) = P(E)P(G)$$

$$P(FG) = P(F)P(G)$$

Independence of E,F,G

- Three events, E , F , and G are said to be independent if

$$P(EFG) = P(E)P(F)P(G)$$

$$P(EF) = P(E)P(F)$$

$$P(EG) = P(E)P(G)$$

$$P(FG) = P(F)P(G)$$

- Note that if E , F , and G are independent, then E will be independent of any event formed from F and G . For instance, E is independent of $F \cup G$

Independence of E,F,G

- Three events, E , F , and G are said to be independent if

$$P(EFG) = P(E)P(F)P(G)$$

$$P(EF) = P(E)P(F)$$

$$P(EG) = P(E)P(G)$$

$$P(FG) = P(F)P(G)$$

- Note that if E , F , and G are independent, then E will be independent of any event formed from F and G . For instance, E is independent of $F \cup G$

$$P[E(F \cup G)] = P(EF \cup EG)$$

$$= P(EF) + P(EG) - P(EFG)$$

$$= P(E)P(F) + P(E)P(G) - P(E)P(FG)$$

$$= P(E)[P(F) + P(G) - P(FG)]$$

$$= P(E)P(F \cup G)$$

Independence of n Events

- We can also extend the definition of independence to more than three events. The events $E_1, E_2, \dots, E_n$ are independent if for every subset $E_{1'}, E_{2'}, \dots, E_{r'}, r \leq n$ of these events,

$$P(E_{1'}, E_{2'}, \dots, E_{r'}) = P(E_{1'})P(E_{2'}) \dots P(E_{r'})$$

Independence of n Events

- We can also extend the definition of independence to more than three events. The events $E_1, E_2, \dots, E_n$ are independent if for every subset $E_{1'}, E_{2'}, \dots, E_{r'}, r \leq n$ of these events,

$$P(E_{1'}, E_{2'}, \dots, E_{r'}) = P(E_{1'})P(E_{2'}) \dots P(E_{r'})$$

- Finally, we define an infinite set of events to be independent if every finite subset of those events is independent.

Independence of more than two events

Two independent tosses of a coin.

$A = \{\text{heads on toss 1}\}$

$B = \{\text{heads on toss 2}\}$

$C = \{\text{two tosses are equal}\}$



Independence of more than two events

Two independent tosses of a coin.

$A = \{\text{heads on toss 1}\}$

$B = \{\text{heads on toss 2}\}$

$C = \{\text{two tosses are equal}\}$

If the events $A_1, A_2, \dots, A_n$, are such that every pair is independent, then they are called **pairwise independent**. It does not follow that the list of events is **mutually independent**.



Another Example: Pairwise and Mutually independent

- Consider the experiment of tossing two dice. Let the sample space $S = \{(i,j) | 1 \leq i,j \leq 6\}$. Also assume that each sample point is assigned a probability $1/36$. Define the events A, B, and C so that:

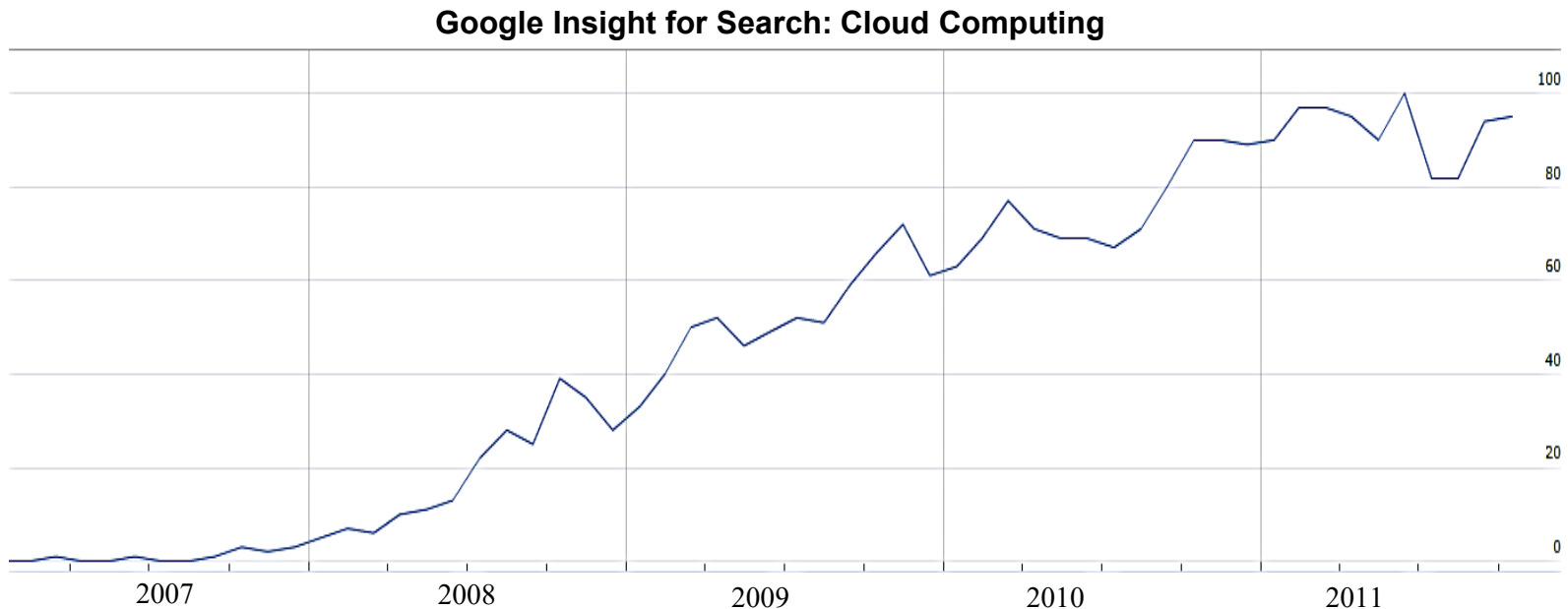
A = “First die results in a 1, 2, or 3.”

B = “First die results in a 3, 4, or 5.”

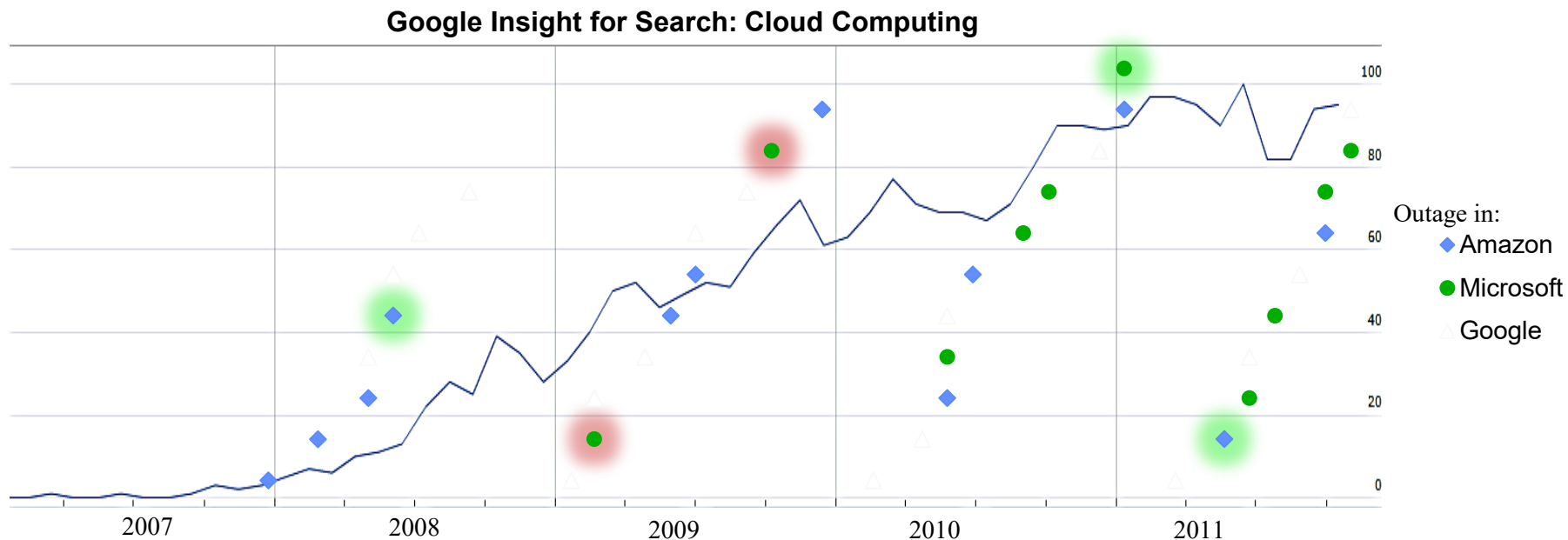
C = “The sum of two faces is 9.”

Reliability Evaluation Applications

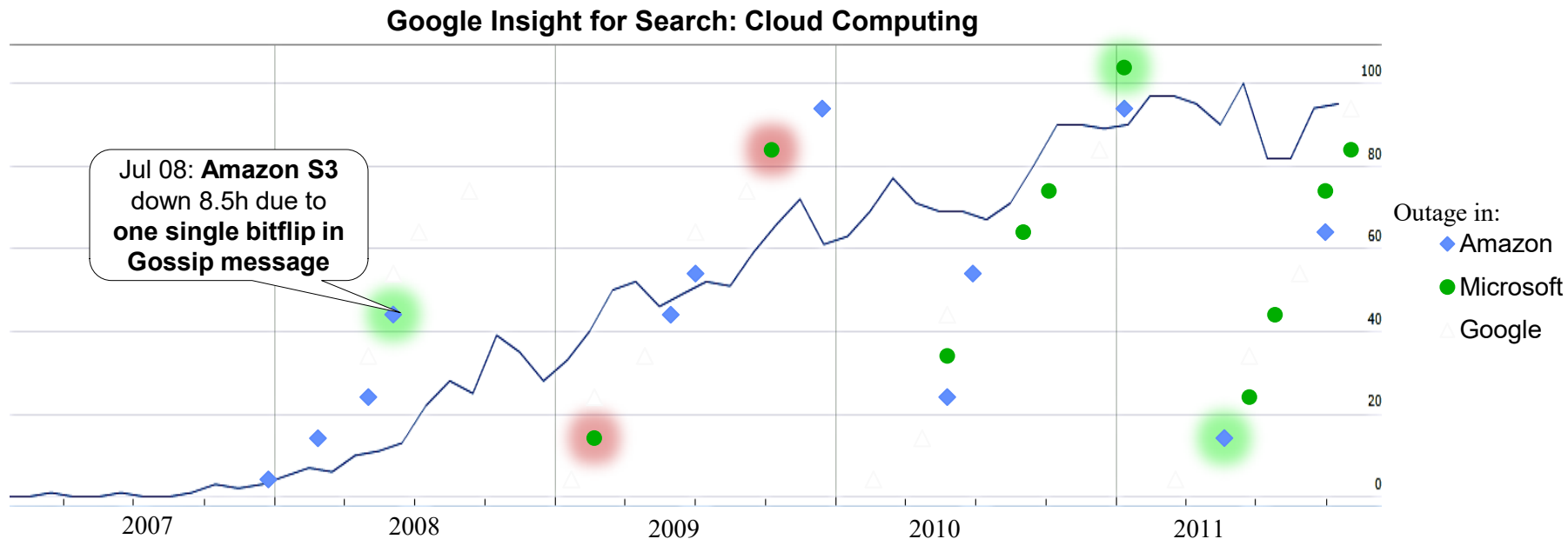
Calculating the Probability of failure: Cloud Computing Example



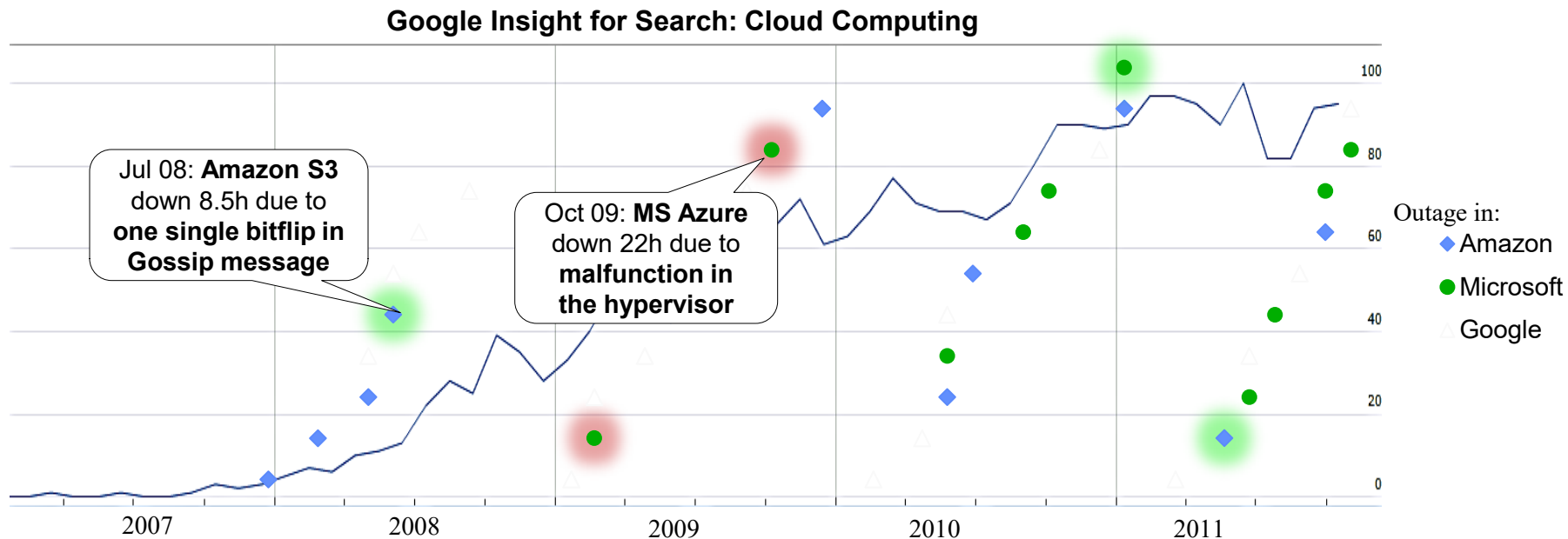
Calculating the Probability of failure: Cloud Computing Example



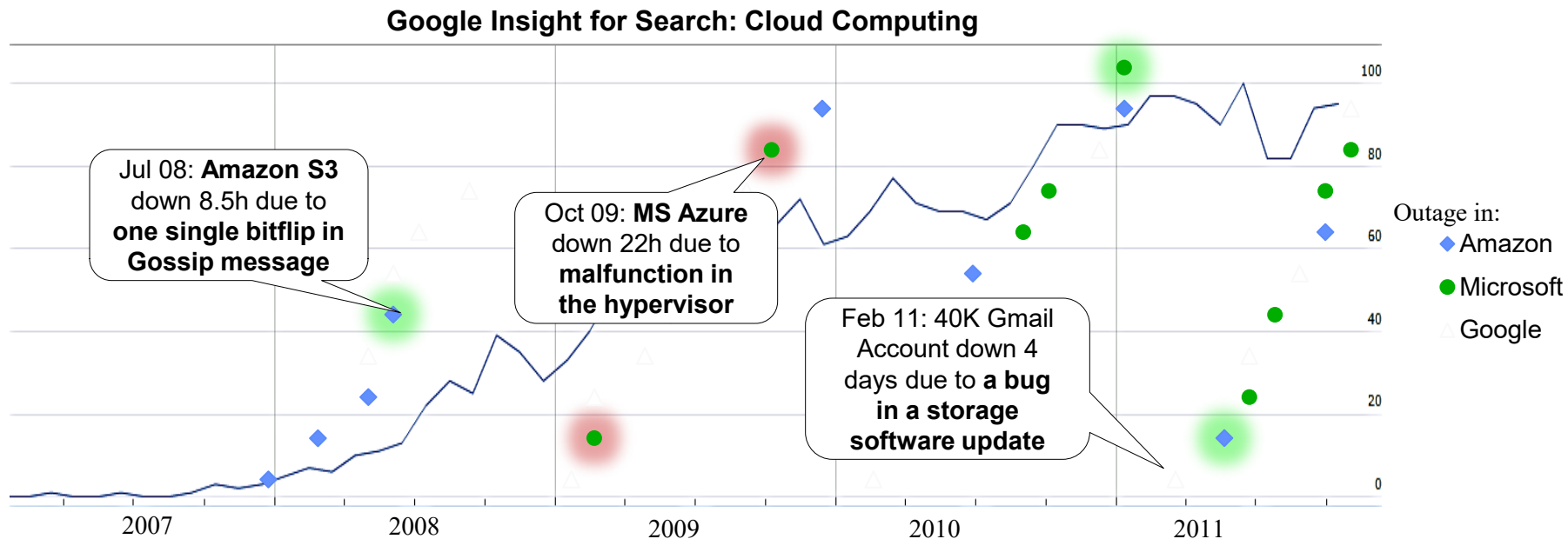
Calculating the Probability of failure: Cloud Computing Example



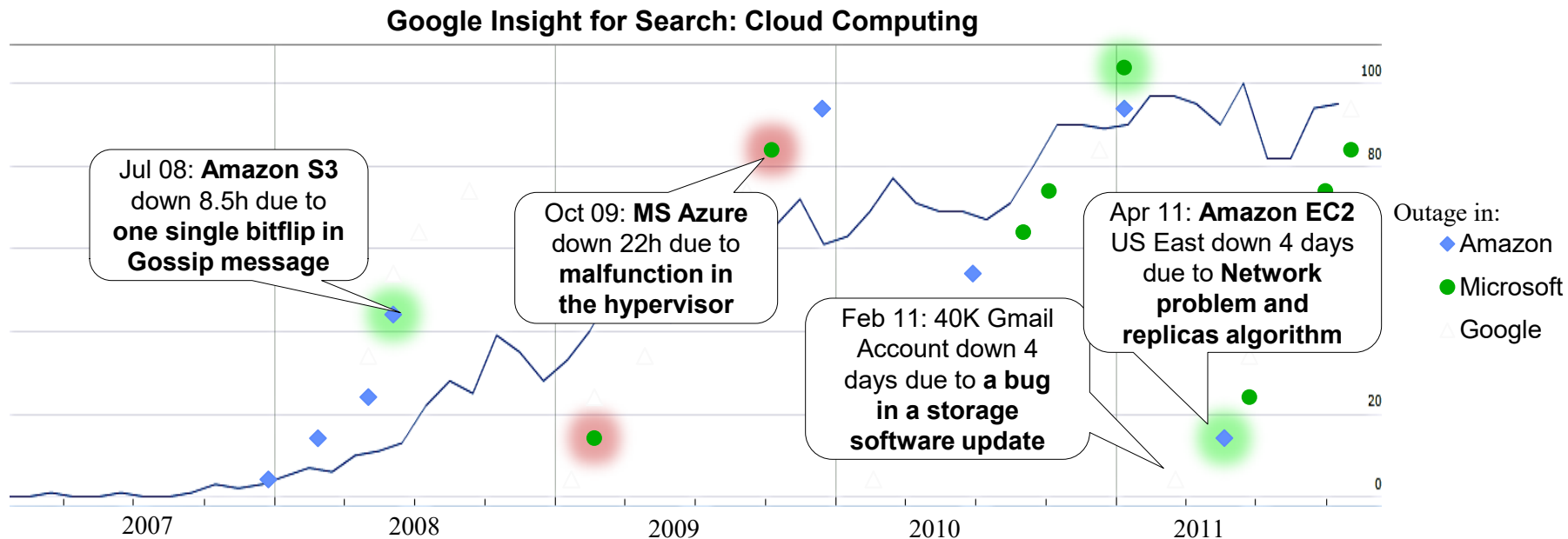
Calculating the Probability of failure: Cloud Computing Example



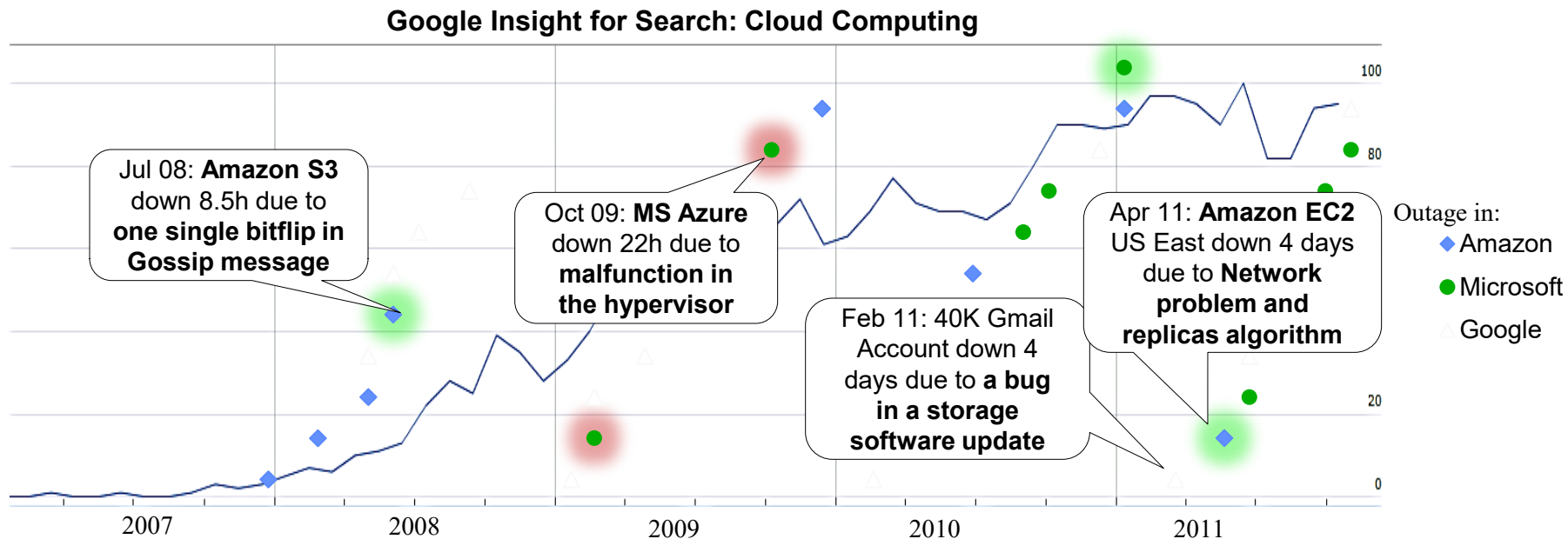
Calculating the Probability of failure: Cloud Computing Example



Calculating the Probability of failure: Cloud Computing Example



Calculating the Probability of failure: Cloud Computing Example



- Providing a **higher level of reliability and availability** is one of the **biggest challenges** of Cloud computing

Application to Reliability Evaluation

Series and Parallel Systems

- Consider the problem of computing reliability of so-called series-parallel systems.
- A **series system** is one in which all components are so interrelated that the entire system will fail if any one of its components fails.
- A **parallel system** is one that will fail only if all its components fail.
- We will assume that failure events of components in a system are mutually independent. Consider a series system of n components.

Application to Reliability Evaluation (cont.)

- For $i=1,2,\dots,n$, define events A_i ="Component i is functioning properly." The **reliability**, R_i , of component i is defined as the probability that the component is functioning properly. Then:
 $R_i=P(A_i)$.
- By the assumption of series connections, the system reliability:

Example of Effect of Complexity on Reliability

- This example demonstrates how quickly system reliability degrades with an increase in complexity.

Example of Effect of Complexity on Reliability

- This example demonstrates how quickly system reliability degrades with an increase in complexity.
- For example, if a system consists of **five components** in a series, each having a reliability of 0.970, then the system reliability is $0.970^5=0.859$.

Example of Effect of Complexity on Reliability

- This example demonstrates how quickly system reliability degrades with an increase in complexity.
- For example, if a system consists of **five components** in a series, each having a reliability of 0.970, then the system reliability is $0.970^5=0.859$.
- If the system complexity is increased so that it contains **ten similar components**, its reliability is reduced $0.970^{10}=0.738$.

Example of Effect of Complexity on Reliability

- This example demonstrates how quickly system reliability degrades with an increase in complexity.
- For example, if a system consists of **five components** in a series, each having a reliability of 0.970, then the system reliability is $0.970^5=0.859$.
- If the system complexity is increased so that it contains **ten similar components**, its reliability is reduced $0.970^{10}=0.738$.
- Imagine what happens to system reliability when a large system such as a computer system consists of tens to hundreds of thousands of components.

Increasing Reliability Using Redundancy

Increasing Reliability Using Redundancy

- One way to increase the reliability of a system is to use redundancy, i.e., to replicate components with small reliabilities. This is called **parallel redundancy**.

Increasing Reliability Using Redundancy

- One way to increase the reliability of a system is to use redundancy, i.e., to replicate components with small reliabilities. This is called **parallel redundancy**.
- Consider a system consisting of n independent components in parallel; the system fails to function only if n components have failed.

Increasing Reliability Using Redundancy

- One way to increase the reliability of a system is to use redundancy, i.e., to replicate components with small reliabilities. This is called **parallel redundancy**.
- Consider a system consisting of n independent components in parallel; the system fails to function only if n components have failed.
- Define event A_i = “The component i is functioning properly” and A_p = “The parallel system of n components is functioning properly.”
Also let $R_i = P(A_i)$ and $R_p = P(A_p)$.

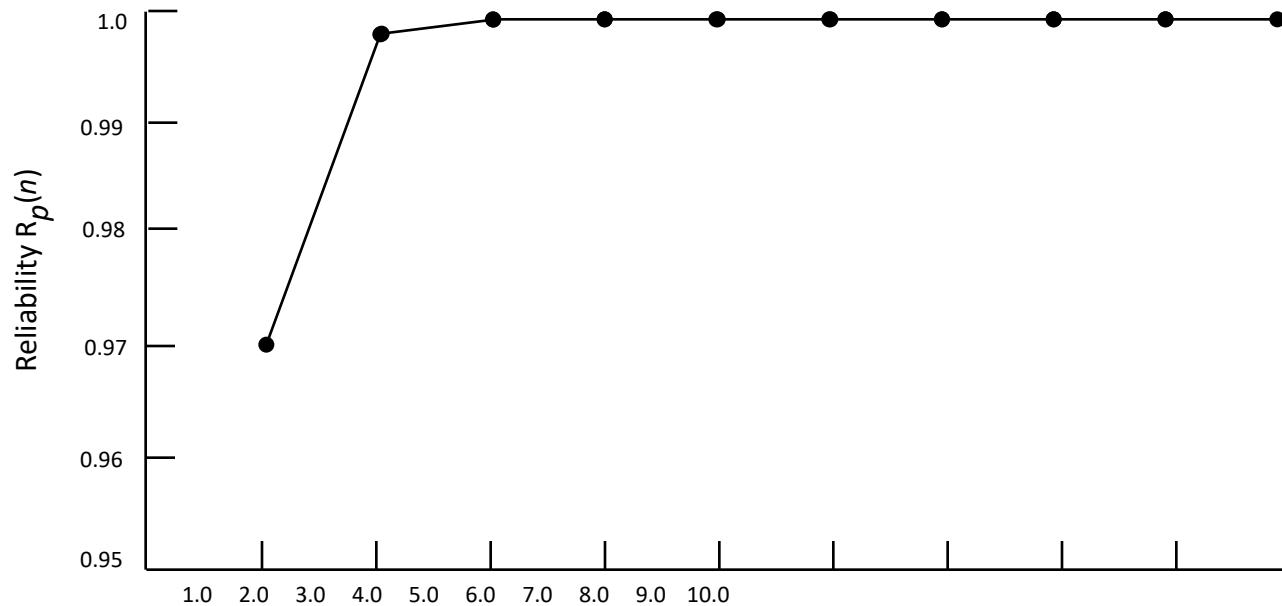
Product Law of Unreliabilities

- Thus, for parallel systems of n independent components, we have a **product law of unreliabilities** analogous to the **product law of reliabilities** of series systems.
- If we have a parallel system of five components, each with a reliability of 0.970, then the system reliability is increased to:

$$1 - (1 - 0.970)^5 = 1 - (0.03)^5 = 1 - 0.0000000243 = 0.9999999757$$

- However, we should be aware of the **law of diminishing returns**.

Reliability Curve of a Parallel Redundant System



Number of components n , each with $R=0.97$

Reliability of Series-Parallel Systems

- We can use formulas parallel and series systems in combination to compute the reliability of a system having both series and parallel parts (**series-parallel systems**).
- Consider a series-parallel system of n serial stages, where stage i consists of n_i identical components in parallel.

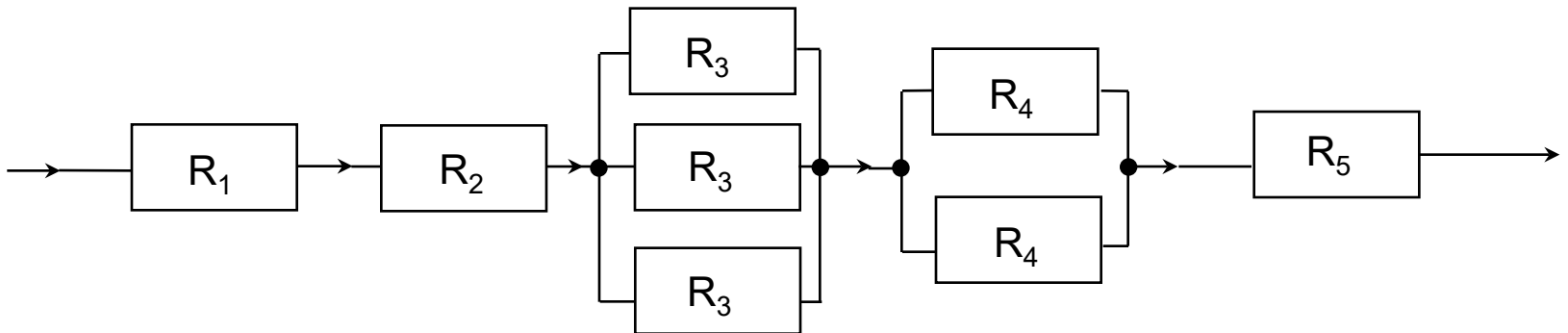
Reliability of Series-Parallel Systems (cont.)

- The reliability of each component of stage i is R_i .
- Assuming that all components are independent, R_{sp} :

$$R_{sp} = \prod_{i=1}^n [1 - (1 - R_i)^{n_i}]$$

Series-Parallel System Example

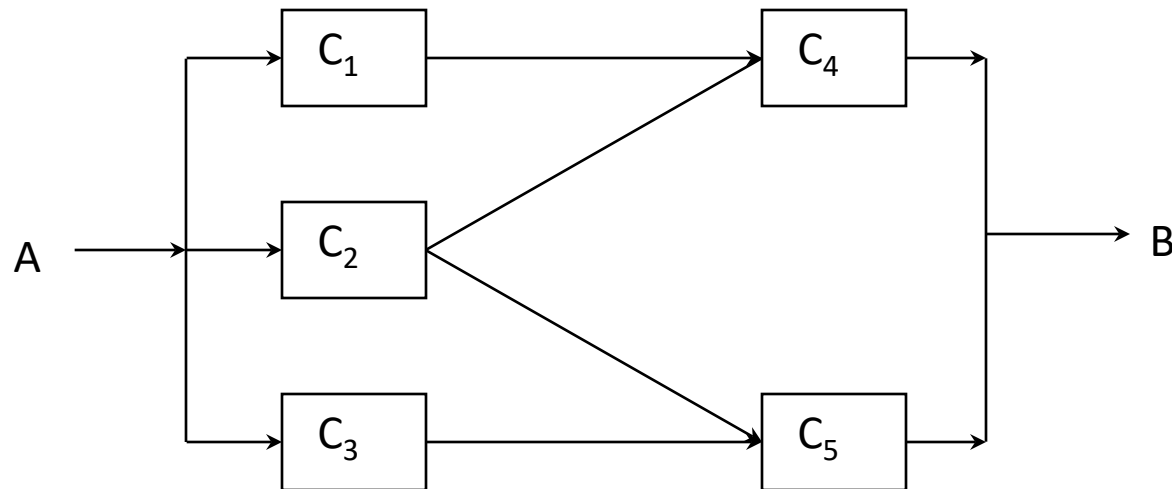
- Consider the series-parallel system shown in the diagram below, consisting of five stages, with $n_1=n_2=n_5=1$, $n_3=3$, $n_4=2$, and $R_1=0.95$, $R_2=0.99$, $R_3=0.70$, $R_4=0.75$, and $R_5=0.9$.
- Then: $R_{sp} = 0.95 \cdot 0.99 \cdot (1 - 0.3^3) \cdot (1 - 0.25^2) \cdot 0.9 = 0.772$



Application of Bayes

A More Complex System: Example

- Consider evaluating the reliability R of the five-component system. The system is said to be functioning properly only if all the components on at least one path from point A to point B are functioning properly.



Solution

In-Class Activity #1

- Divide into groups of 3 to 4 people
- Discuss / work together
- **Submit your own solution** (by 12:00)